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Master's in Formal Methods in Computer Science

Master's Thesis

Type Theory and Categorical Models
A Unified Approach

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Abstract

This work investigates the interplay of lambda calculus, type theory, category theory, computation, and functional programming through the Curry-Howard-Lambek correspondence. It explores lambda calculus as a computational foundation, its expression in type-safe functional programming, and its categorical semantics, highlighting how these fields unify to enhance program design.

Esta trabajo examina la interacción entre el cálculo lambda, la teoría de tipos, la teoría de categorías, la computación y la programación funcional a través de la correspondencia Curry-Howard-Lambek. Explora el cálculo lambda como base computacional, su expresión tipada y su semántica categórica, destacando cómo estos campos se unifican para mejorar el diseño de programas.

Keywords: Lambda Calculus, Type Theory, Category Theory, Computation, Functional Programming, Curry-Howard-Lambek Correspondence

Introduction

This work explores the untyped and typed lambda calculus, intuitionistic logic, and the Curry-Howard Isomorphism. Selected theoretical concepts are further exemplified through implementations in Haskell and Lean4, leveraging Haskell's lazy evaluation for the untyped lambda calculus.

Chapter 1

λ-Calculus

In the early 20th century, mathematicians such as Bertrand Russell, David Hilbert, and Kurt Gödel were trying to set complete, consistent, and decidable foundations for mathematics. Within this context, Alonzo Church, in his effort to formalize the notion of computability, introduced a minimal symbolic language based upon function abstraction and function application, this system is now called λ-calculus.

In 1936, Church used lambda calculus to address Hilberts Entscheidungsproblem –whether a mechanical method could determine the truth of any first-order logic statement. He proved no such algorithm exists, establishing the undecidability of first-order logic.

One of the nuances formalized by the λ-calculus is the distinction between extensional and intensional equality. The extensional approach to equivalence states that two functions are equivalent if they share input output pairs for every possible input. Its intensional counterpart extends this notion of equality by requiring that the procedures that compute these pairs share complexity i.e. they take the same steps toward yielding a result.[1]

The Lambda Calculus together with Type Theory lay the theoretical groundwork that shaped the design of languages like LISP, Haskell and Erlang to name a few. More advanced type systems than those present in general purpose programming languages enable computers to verify mathematical statements and produce rigorous proofs.

[1] Let p be a sufficiently large prime, and let $f, g : \mathbb{Z}_p \to \mathbb{Z}_p$ be defined by $f(x) = x^2$ and $g(x) = \log_a(a^{x+2})$, where $a \in \mathbb{Z}_p^\times$ is a fixed primitive root. Although f and g are extensionally equal, i.e., they yield the same output for all inputs in $\mathbb{Z}_p$, they are intensionally distinct. The function f performs a simple squaring operation, while g requires evaluating a discrete logarithm, intractable in general. (Nadal 2021)

1.1 Untyped λ-Calculus

In order to get acquainted with the λ-calculus, let us develop a simple example to familiarize ourselves before we begin with a more formal approach to this discipline. Consider the function $f(x) = x + 1$, the most straightforward way to express this using λ-calculus would be $(\lambda x.x + 1)$, where the lambda denotes that x is being captured and used as a parameter to perform some computation. Evaluating $f(2)$ using this newly created lambda term would look like this: $(\lambda x.x + 1)(2) \rightsquigarrow (2 + 1) \rightsquigarrow 3$. This process of reducing a λ-expression is referred to as β-reduction, it will be covered formally later in the chapter.

1.1.1 The Language of λ-Calculus

Definition 1.1.1. The set of all lambda terms Λ is defined inductively as follows:

- (Variable) If $x \in \mathcal{V}$, then $x \in \Lambda$.
- (Abstraction) If $x \in \mathcal{V}$ and $M \in \Lambda$, then $(\lambda x.M) \in \Lambda$.
- (Application) If $M, N \in \Lambda$, then $(MN) \in \Lambda$.

Where $\mathcal{V} = \{x, y, z, ...\}$ represents a countably infinite set of variable names. These notions are conveniently synthesized into the following abstract syntax:

$$\Lambda := \mathcal{V} \mid \lambda x.\Lambda \mid \Lambda\,\Lambda$$

that directly translates into the following Haskell snippet:

```
data Term = Var String
      | Abs String Term
      | App Term Term
```

The key takeaway of this definition is that abstraction and application when paired with a reduction procedure, capture the meaning of function in a way that is abstract yet useful, and enables computation.

Notation 1. We use uppercase letters, e.g. M, N, L, P, Q to denote elements of Λ and lowercase e.g. x, y, z to denote elements of $\mathcal{V}$.

Remark 1. From the definition above we extract that $\lambda x.x + 1 \notin \Lambda$, given this circumstance, the need to find an accurate representation for numbers within this definition arises. See Definition 1.1.22

Example 1.1.1. Some examples of valid λ terms generated using the syntax from 1.1.1: y, $(\lambda x.(xx))$, $(\lambda x.(\lambda y.x))$, $(((\lambda x.(xy))(\lambda y.y))z)$. The Haskell counterpart for the second term is:

```
Abs "x" (Abs "y" (Var "x"))
```

As a convention to avoid notational cluttering, the outermost parenthesis can be omitted e.g. $\lambda x.x$ is read as $(\lambda x.x)$. Also, application is left-associative and binds tighter than abstraction, so MNP is parsed as $(MN)P$ and $\lambda x.MN$ means $\lambda x.(MN)$, not $(\lambda x.M)N$. Likewise, abstraction is right-associative e.g. $\lambda x.\lambda y.M$ is $\lambda x.(\lambda y.M)$ and binds more weakly than application. Haskell Curry introduced what we now refer to as currying, its main purpose is to avoid unnecessary lambdas. Below is a summary of common notational conventions used throughout the text:

- $\lambda x.\, x \iff (\lambda x.\, x)$
- $M\,N\,P \iff (M\,N)\,P$
- $\lambda x.M\,N \iff \lambda x.(M\,N)$
- $\lambda x.\lambda y.f(x,y) \iff \lambda xy.f(x,y)$

All these are just to keep notation straight-forward, since the formal definition does not leave precedence under-specified thanks to parenthesis. Those interested in the implementation need not worry, as Haskell enforces an explicit order on constructors.

1.1.2 Reduction of terms

Now that the λ-calculus language has been introduced, it is time we move on to the mechanics of computation, manifested through β-equivalence. α and η equivalence will also be introduced. These two are more difficult to grasp. Informally, it could be said that α-equivalence is equivalence programs up to renaming of local variables. In this same scenario, η-equivalence would singnify equivalence of programs up to wrapping or unwrapping them with an identity function.

1.1.2.1 Subterms

From the ground up, we define what a subterm is, since the definition of the language is self-referential and terms might contain other terms.

Definition 1.1.2. Given $T \in \Lambda$, $\mathbf{Sub} : \Lambda \to \mathscr{P}(\mathscr{V})$ maps a term to the set of it's subterms.

$$\begin{aligned}
&\mathbf{Sub}(x) = \{x\} \\
&\mathbf{Sub}(MN) = \mathbf{Sub}(M) \cup \mathbf{Sub}(N) \cup \{MN\} \\
&\mathbf{Sub}(\lambda x.M) = \mathbf{Sub}(M) \cup \{\lambda x.M\}
\end{aligned}$$

Where $x \in \mathscr{V}$ and $M, N \in \Lambda$. In Haskell:

```
subTerms :: Term -> Set.Set Term
subTerms (Var x) = Set.singleton (Var x)
subTerms (App m n) =
    Set.insert (App m n) (Set.union (subTerms m) (subTerms n))
subTerms (Abs x m) =
    Set.insert (Abs x m) (subTerms m)
```

Remark 2. Let $\preceq$ be the subterm relation on λ-terms, defined by

$$M \preceq N \iff M \in \mathbf{Sub}(N)$$

$\preceq$ is a partial order relation. This statement is follows intuitively from the definition, it can be proven using induction on the derivation tree.

Definition 1.1.3. A term $S \in \mathbf{Sub}(M)$, $M \in \Lambda$ is said to be proper if $S \neq M$. $\mathbf{Sub}(M) \setminus \{M\}$ would be the set of proper subterms.

Definition 1.1.4. Let $M = \lambda x.N$ be a λ-term:

- The variable x is the binding variable of the abstraction $\lambda x.N$.
- An occurrence of a variable x in M is bound if $x \in \mathbf{Sub}(\lambda x.N)$.
- Free variables are those that are not bound.

Example 1.1.2. Take $M \equiv \lambda x.\, x\, y$, in this example, the x in $\lambda x.$ is binding, y is free, and x is bound. This means that y is used literally, and that x, as denoted by $\lambda x.$ is abstracted and thus subject to being replaced within the context of said abstraction. A subexample might make this explicit: $(\lambda x.\, x\, y)\, M \rightsquigarrow_\beta M\, y$. The y remained while the x was used as a placeholder for M.

Note 1. This taxonomy is key to understanding concepts such as α-equivalence intuitively.

1.1.2.2 Free Variables

The set of Free Variables **FV**, those that will not get replaced during the process of reduction, is computed using:

Definition 1.1.5. Given $T \in \Lambda$, $\mathbf{FV} : \Lambda \to \mathscr{P}(\mathscr{V})$ outputs the set of free variables for T:

$$\begin{aligned}
&\mathbf{FV}(x) = \{x\} \\
&\mathbf{FV}(MN) = \mathbf{FV}(M) \cup \mathbf{FV}(N) \\
&\mathbf{FV}(\lambda x.M) = \mathbf{FV}(M) \setminus \{x\}
\end{aligned}$$

Where $x \in \mathscr{V}$ and $M, N \in \Lambda$, and $\mathscr{P}$ denotes the power set. In Haskell:

```
freeVars :: Term -> Set.Set String
freeVars (Var x) = Set.singleton x
freeVars (App m n) = Set.union (freeVars m) (freeVars m)
freeVars (Abs x m) = Set.delete x (freeVars m)
```

Example 1.1.3. Computing the free variables of $\lambda x.\lambda y.yxz$. The term well-formed, so we proceed:

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbf{FV}(\lambda x.\lambda y.yxz) &= \mathbf{FV}(\lambda y.yxz) \setminus \{x\} \\ &= \mathbf{FV}(yxz) \setminus \{x, y\} \\ &= \{x, y, z\} \setminus \{x, y\} \\ &= \{z\}\end{aligned}$$

Of course, z is the only free variable in the expression as it is the only variable that is not captured by some λ-abstraction.

Definition 1.1.6. A term $M \in \Lambda$ is closed if and only if $\mathbf{FV}(M) = \emptyset$, closed lambda terms are often referred to as combinators. Λ^0 is the set of all closed lambda terms.

Note 2. They are called combinators since having no free variables means that all variables are bound, and thus, a closed term just combines bound variables.

1.1.2.3 Variable Substitution

We approach the definition for α-equivalence to this end we have to introduce what it means to substitute a variable.

Definition 1.1.7. Capture-Avoiding Substitution Rules Let $M, N \in \Lambda$ and $x, y, z \in \mathcal{V}$. The substitution $M[x := N]$ is defined inductively as:

$$\begin{aligned}x[x := N] &= N \\ y[x := N] &= y && y \neq x \\ (M_1\, M_2)[x := N] &= (M_1[x := N])\,(M_2[x := N]) \\ (\lambda x.M)[x := N] &= \lambda x.M \\ (\lambda y.M)[x := N] &= \lambda y.(M[x := N]) && y \neq x, y \notin \mathbf{FV}(N) \\ (\lambda y.M)[x := N] &= \lambda z.(M[y := z][x := N]) && y \neq x, y \in \mathbf{FV}(N)\end{aligned}$$

where $z \notin \mathbf{FV}(M) \cup \mathbf{FV}(N)$. Implementing the latter in Haskell requires a bit more code than previous definitions, along with making some practical tradeoffs:

```
capAvoidSubs :: Term -> String -> Term -> Term
capAvoidSubs same@(Var y) x n
  | y == x = n
  | otherwise = same
capAvoidSubs (App t1 t2) s t3 =
  App (capAvoidSubs t1 s t3) (capAvoidSubs t2 s t3)
```

```
capAvoidSubs (Abs y m) x n
  | y == x = (Abs y m)
  | otherwise =
      if Set.member y (freeVars n)
      then
        let z = freshVar y (Set.union (freeVars m) (freeVars n))
        in (Abs z (capAvoidSubs (capAvoidSubs m y (Var z)) x n))
      else
        (Abs y (capAvoidSubs m x n))
  where
    freshVar :: String -> Set.Set String -> String
    freshVar s terms =
      if Set.member (s ++ "'") terms
      then
        freshVar (s ++ "'") terms
      else
        s ++ "'"
```

Note 3. `freshVar` generates a new name for binding variables such that $z \notin \mathbf{FV}(M) \cup \mathbf{FV}(N)$. In this instance we have chosen to add single quotes as long as the variable name is contained in $\mathbf{FV}(M) \cup \mathbf{FV}(N)$.

Hopefully the meaning of the first three rules is clear, they ancapsulate renaming in the context of variables and applications. The subsequent rules are about abstractions, rule four states that renaming a binding variable has no effect, renaming only modifies a term whenever the renamed variable is different from the binding variable. Rule five is the general case, that is, when the substitution just moves in together with the abstracted term. Then there is the last case, when the binding variable is a bound occurrence in the term we are substituting, which poses a problem, to see why, let us work through an example:

Example 1.1.4. If we mistakenly substitute x by $(\lambda w.\, w\, y)$ in $(\lambda y.\, y\, x)$ using rule five, we get:

$$(\lambda y.\, yx)[x := (\lambda w.\, w\, y)] = (\lambda y.\, y\, (\lambda w.\, w\, y))$$

This is problematic since the free variable y became bound after the rename. Free and bound variables should maintain their freedom or boundedness after a rename. The correct way to substitute avoiding the name clash:

$$(\lambda y.\, yx)[x := (\lambda w.\, w\, y)] = (\lambda z.\, z\, (\lambda w.\, w\, y))$$

Binding variable serve as placeholders, therefore, renaming should not affect the integrity of an expression.

Note 4. Hence the use of Capture Avoiding alongside Substitution.

One notable result regarding substitution is the substitution lemma:

Lemma 1.1.1. Let M, N, P be lambda terms and x, y be variables. Then:

$$M[x := N][y := P] = \begin{cases} M[x := N[y := P]], & \text{if } x = y, \\ M[y := P][x := N[y := P]], & \text{if } x \neq y \text{ and } y \notin \mathrm{FV}(N). \end{cases}$$

Proof. By structural induction on M, using α-conversion to avoid capture and assuming bound variables x, y, N, P are fresh.

- **Variable case:** Direct from the definition of substitution; check $z = x$, $z = y$, and z distinct from both.
- **Application case:** Substitution distributes:

  $$(M_1 M_2)[x := N] = M_1[x := N]\, M_2[x := N],$$

  so both statements follow immediately from the induction hypothesis on M_1 and M_2.
- **Abstraction case:** With z fresh,

  $$(\lambda z.M_0)[x := N] = \lambda z.(M_0[x := N]),$$

  and the induction hypothesis applies to M_0.

The side condition in (2) ensures the $[y := P]$ substitution does not enter N when changing the order. □

In the previous example a bound variable is renamed to avoid a naming collision and avoid binding a previously free variable, α-equivalence is the generalization of this technique, it defines equivalence up to renaming of binding variables.

Notation 2. In many of the upcoming definitions inference rules are used, here is a simple introduction for those unfamiliar with the concept:

$$\frac{P_1 \quad P_2 \quad \cdots \quad P_n}{C}\ \textsc{Name}$$

where P_i are judgments assumed to hold, C is the judgment inferred from the premises and NAME is an optional identification label.

1.1.2.4 α-equivalence

Definition 1.1.8. Two lambda terms $M, N \in \Lambda$ are α-equivalent, written $M =_\alpha N$, if they are structurally identical except for the names of bound variables. Formally:

$$\frac{}{\lambda x.L =_\alpha \lambda y.L[x := y]}\ \textsc{Alpha} \qquad \frac{L =_\alpha L'}{\lambda x.L =_\alpha \lambda x.L'}\ \textsc{Abs}$$

$$\frac{L_1 =_\alpha L_1'}{L_1 L_2 =_\alpha L_1' L_2}\ \textsc{AppL} \qquad \frac{L_2 =_\alpha L_2'}{L_1 L_2 =_\alpha L_1 L_2'}\ \textsc{AppR}$$

α-equivalence is an equivalence relation:

(Reflexivity)	$M =_\alpha M$
(Transitivity)	$M =_\alpha N$ and $N =_\alpha P \Rightarrow M =_\alpha P$
(Symetry)	$M =_\alpha N \Rightarrow N =_\alpha M$

Example 1.1.5. A simple equivalence class and two samples of not α-equivalent pairs.

$$\lambda x.\lambda y.\, y =_\alpha \lambda a.\lambda b.\, b =_\alpha \lambda z.\lambda x.\, x$$

$$\lambda x.\lambda y.\, x \neq_\alpha \lambda x.\lambda y.\, y \quad \lambda x.\, x\, y \neq_\alpha \lambda x.\, x\, z$$

Remember terms are α-equivalent only when bounded names are properly substituted.

Remark 3. α-equivalence comes naturally once substitution is defined, since the names of bound variables are just placeholders that will eventually hold an argument, thus getting replaced.

Note 5. Variable naming is a nightmare. De Bruijn indexing is a way of methodically assigning numbers to variable names, indicating how many binders away a variables binder is. This system eliminates the need for α equivalence to exist.

$$\lambda x.\, x \Rightarrow \lambda.0 \quad \lambda x.\lambda y.\, x \Rightarrow \lambda.\lambda.1 \quad \lambda x.\lambda y.\, y \Rightarrow \lambda.\lambda.0$$

We are better at names than we are at numbers, which is why we will prefer using symbols over De Brujn indexing. Programs like automated theorem provers and compilers do use similar naming strategies to simplify their work.

1.1.2.5 β-equivalence

Defines the means to perform computation in the λ-calculus, applying substitution as a means of reduction for expressions. This is similar to how one simplifies an arithmetic expression, only it is more powerful, since arithmetic expressions lack expressiveness **??**.

Definition 1.1.9. Single-step β-reduction $\rightsquigarrow_\beta$ is defined using the following inference rules:

$$\frac{}{(\lambda x.\, M)\, N \rightsquigarrow_\beta M[x := N]}\ \textsc{Beta} \qquad \frac{M \rightsquigarrow_\beta M'}{\lambda x.\, M \rightsquigarrow_\beta \lambda x.\, M'}\ \textsc{Abs}$$

$$\frac{M_1 \rightsquigarrow_\beta M_1'}{M_1\, M_2 \rightsquigarrow_\beta M_1'\, M_2}\ \textsc{AppL} \qquad \frac{M_2 \rightsquigarrow_\beta M_2'}{M_1\, M_2 \rightsquigarrow_\beta M_1\, M_2'}\ \textsc{AppR}$$

where $M, N \in \Lambda$. In Haskell:

```
betaRed :: Term -> Term
betaRed same@(Var x) = same
betaRed (Abs x y) = Abs x (betaRed y)
betaRed (App (Abs x y) z) = capAvoidSubs y x z
betaRed (App x y) = App (betaRed x) (betaRed y)
```

Single β-reductions can be applied succesively, which induces the following definition

Definition 1.1.10. Multi-step β-reduction. We write $M \rightsquigarrow_\beta^* N$ if and only if there exists a sequence of one-step β-reductions starting from M and ending at N.[2]

$$M \equiv M_0 \rightsquigarrow_\beta M_1 \rightsquigarrow_\beta M_2 \rightsquigarrow_\beta \cdots \rightsquigarrow_\beta M_{n-1} \rightsquigarrow_\beta M_n \equiv N$$

That is, there exists an integer $n \geq 0$ and a sequence of terms $M_0, M_1, \ldots, M_n$ such that: $M_0 \equiv M$ and $M_n \equiv N$ for all i with $0 \leq i < n$, we have $M_i \rightsquigarrow_\beta M_{i+1}$.

Note 6. Multi-step $\rightsquigarrow_\beta^*$ is the reflexive transitive closure of $\rightsquigarrow_\beta$.

The process of succesively β-reducing a term leads raises the question of whether all terms can be reduced indefinitly. We know the answer to this, since for instance, variables in $\mathcal{V}$ cannot be reduced. The subsequent question is then, Do all all terms have some kind of normal form that cannot be reduced further? This is answered in Section 1.1.5. To this end we introduce a formal definition of normal form that will allow us to gain insight into the normalization properties of the λ-calculus.

Definition 1.1.11. A λ-term M is in normal form if there is no term N such that $M \rightsquigarrow_\beta N$. Equivalently, M contains no subterm of the form $(\lambda x.P)\,Q$ that can be reduced by beta-reduction. In other words, M is irreducible under beta-reduction.

Definition 1.1.12. A reducible expression, or redex for short, is any subterm of the form $(\lambda x.P)\,Q$. Such a term can be reduced by a single beta-reduction step, resulting in $P[x := Q]$.

Definition 1.1.13. β-equivalence relation, equivalence of λ-terms through β-reductions.

$$M =_\beta N \iff M \rightsquigarrow_\beta^* N \vee N \rightsquigarrow_\beta^* M$$

Note 7. $=_\beta$ is the symetric closure of $\rightsquigarrow_\beta^*$.

We now explore a key aspect of the λ-calculus, in the jargon referred to as first-class citizenship, or high-order, a property of terms that restrains them from being exclusively classified as either function or argument. The example below sheds some light on the matter:

[2] The convention in the literature is to use $\rightarrow_\beta$ for β-reductions $\twoheadrightarrow_\beta$ for multi-step β-reductions. I prefer to use $\rightsquigarrow_\beta$ and $\rightsquigarrow_\beta^n$ since this allows me to use the superscript to note the number of steps in the process β-reduction e.g. $(\lambda f.\lambda x.x)\,M\,N \rightsquigarrow_\beta^2$ N. Instead of $\rightsquigarrow_\beta^n$ I use $\rightsquigarrow_\beta^*$ whenever the number of steps is undefined.

Example 1.1.6. High Order by example. Let us β-reduce the λ-term ABC and inspect the consequences:

$$\begin{aligned}\overbrace{(\lambda f.\lambda y.f\,f\,y)}^{A}\overbrace{(\lambda x.x+1)}^{B}\overbrace{(2)}^{C} &\leadsto_\beta (\lambda y.(\lambda x.x+1)(\lambda x.x+1)\,y)(2)\\ &\leadsto_\beta (\lambda x.x+1)(\lambda x.x+1)(2)\\ &\leadsto_\beta^* (\lambda x.x+1)(3)\\ &\leadsto_\beta^* (4)\end{aligned}$$

Taking a closer look, A, applies f twice to x, as a consequence, B is being applied twice to C. And so, very easily, we have implemented the $x+2$ function via a sequential application of $x+1$ to C.

Remark 4. As seen above, we can pass what we understand as conventional functions as arguments since they are treated alike. One can intuitively apreciate the computational expresivenes this brings with it, and how this syntactic-semantic homogeneity sets the λ-calculus apart from the classical set-theoretic approach to functions.

1.1.2.6 η-equivalence

The last and indeed the least important notion of equivalence. It refers to a program being equivalent to itself wrapped with an identity function:

Definition 1.1.14. Two lambda terms M and N are said to be η-equivalent, written $M =_\eta N$, if:

$$\frac{x \notin \mathbf{FV}(M)}{(\lambda x.\,M\,x) =_\eta M}\ \textsc{Eta} \qquad \frac{M =_\eta M'}{\lambda x.\,M =_\eta \lambda x.\,M'}\ \textsc{Abs}$$

$$\frac{M_1 =_\eta M_1'}{M_1\,M_2 =_\eta M_1'\,M_2}\ \textsc{AppL} \qquad \frac{M_2 =_\eta M_2'}{M_1\,M_2 =_\eta M_1\,M_2'}\ \textsc{AppR}$$

The abstraction $\lambda x.(M\ x)$ performs the same operation as M, so if x is not used freely within M, the abstraction serves no purpose. This is shown in Eta, the rest of the inference rules propagate this equivalence throughout the whole term.

Note 8. Two terms are observationally equivalent if they cannot be distinguished by any context that can be papplied to them. η-equivalence can be understood as a form of weak extensionality, since it does not fully encode observational equivalence.

1.1.3 Normalization & The Church-Rosser Theorem

In this section we attempt to give the reader an overview of the properties behind this calculus. We analyze what makes the untyped λ-calculus a suitable computation model, and provide enough evidence that it is missing some desirable properties that motivate the introduction of typing.

1.1.3.1 The Church-Rosser Theorem

To this end we specify some properties general to relations, specifically, those that help us reason about confluence and termination.

Definition 1.1.15. Let $R \subseteq A \times A$ be a binary relation on a set A. The reflexive-transitive closure of R, denoted by R^*, is the smallest relation on A such that:

$$\begin{array}{ll} \text{(Reflexivity)} & (x,x) \in R^* \\ \text{(Transitivity)} & (x,y) \in R^* \wedge (y,z) \in R^* \Rightarrow (x,z) \in R^* \\ \text{(Inclusion of } R\text{)} & (x,y) \in R \Rightarrow (x,y) \in R^* \end{array}$$

where $x, y, z \in A$.

Note 9. R^* contains all pairs that relate to each other in such a way that x can be transformed into y by applying R zero or more times.

Definition 1.1.16. Let $\rightarrow$ be a binary relation on a set A. The symbol $\rightarrow^*$ denotes reflexive-transitive closure of $\rightarrow$. We define the following properties:

$$\begin{array}{ll} \text{(Church-Rosser)} & x \rightarrow^* y \wedge x \rightarrow^* z \Rightarrow \exists w \in A,\ y \rightarrow^* w \wedge z \rightarrow^* w \\ \text{(Quasi-Diamond)} & x \rightarrow y \wedge x \rightarrow z \Rightarrow \exists w \in A,\ y \rightarrow^* w \wedge z \rightarrow^* w \\ \text{(Diamond)} & x \rightarrow y \wedge x \rightarrow z \Rightarrow \exists w \in A,\ y \rightarrow w \wedge z \rightarrow w \end{array}$$

where $x, y, z, w \in A$.

Note 10. Both Church-Rosser and Quasi-Diamond are weaker than Diamond. Notice how Diamond $\Rightarrow$ Quasi-Diamond and Diamond $\Rightarrow$ Church-Rosser.

Definition 1.1.17. The parallel β-reduction relation $M \Longrightarrow_\beta N$ is defined inductively by the following inference rules:

$$\frac{N \Longrightarrow_\beta N' \qquad Q \Longrightarrow_\beta Q'}{(\lambda x.N)\, Q \Longrightarrow_\beta N'[x := Q']}\ \textsc{Beta} \qquad \frac{}{x \Longrightarrow_\beta x}\ \textsc{Var}$$

$$\frac{N \Longrightarrow_\beta N'}{\lambda x.N \Longrightarrow_\beta \lambda x.N'}\ \textsc{Abs} \qquad \frac{P \Longrightarrow_\beta P' \qquad Q \Longrightarrow_\beta Q'}{P\,Q \Longrightarrow_\beta P'\,Q'}\ \textsc{App}$$

Parallel β-reduction is assumed to be reflexive i.e. $M \Longrightarrow_\beta M$

Note 11. Notice how parallel β-reduction can simulate plain β-reduction. This fact will be used to prove properties for β-reduction.

Definition 1.1.18. The complete development M^*_β of a term M is obtained by reducing all β-redexes in M simultaneously:

$$x^*_\beta = x, \quad (\lambda x.N)^*_\beta = \lambda x.N^*_\beta, \quad (PQ)^*_\beta = \begin{cases} N^*_\beta[x := Q^*_\beta] & \text{if } P = \lambda x.N \\ P^*_\beta Q^*_\beta & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

Lemma 1.1.2. If $M \Longrightarrow_\beta M'$, then $M' \Longrightarrow_\beta M^*_\beta$.

Proof Sketch. By induction on the derivation of $M \Longrightarrow_\beta M'$:

- $M = x$. Trivial: $M' = x = M^*_\beta$.
- $M = \lambda x.N$, $M' = \lambda x.N'$. By IH, $N' \Longrightarrow_\beta N^*_\beta$, so $\lambda x.N' \Longrightarrow_\beta \lambda x.N^*_\beta = M^*_\beta$.
- $M = PQ$, $M' = P'Q'$. By IH, $P' \Longrightarrow_\beta P^*_\beta$ and $Q' \Longrightarrow_\beta Q^*_\beta$.
  1. If $P = \lambda x.N$, then $P' = \lambda x.N'$. By IH, $N' \Longrightarrow_\beta N^*_\beta$ and $Q' \Longrightarrow_\beta Q^*_\beta$. Apply the redex rule: $P'Q' = (\lambda x.N')Q' \Longrightarrow_\beta N^*_\beta[Q^*_\beta/x] = M^*_\beta$.
  2. If P is not a λ-abstraction, then $P'Q' \Longrightarrow_\beta P^*_\beta Q^*_\beta = M^*_\beta$.
- $M = (\lambda x.N)Q$, $M' = N'[Q'/x]$. By IH, $N' \Longrightarrow_\beta N^*_\beta$ and $Q' \Longrightarrow_\beta Q^*_\beta$. Substitution preserves parallel reduction: $N'[Q'/x] \Longrightarrow_\beta N^*_\beta[Q^*_\beta/x] = M^*_\beta$.

□

Remark 5. This lemma formalizes the fact that a single parallel β-reduction step does not miss any β-redexes: after reducing in parallel to M', one can still reach the complete development $M^{\beta *}$ of the original term by further parallel β-reductions. In other words, parallel β-reduction is complete with respect to the simultaneous contraction of all redexes—no matter which parallel step you take, the term remains on a path toward the fully developed form.

Theorem 1.1.3. The Church-Rosser Theorem states that if $M \rightsquigarrow^*_\beta N_1$ and $M \rightsquigarrow^*_\beta N_2$, then there exists P such that

$$N_1 \rightsquigarrow^*_\beta N_3 \quad \text{and} \quad N_2 \rightsquigarrow^*_\beta N_3.$$

Graphically:

$$\begin{tikzcd}
 & M \arrow[dl, "*"'] \arrow[dr, "*"] & \\
N_1 \arrow[dr, dashed, "*"'] & & N_2 \arrow[dl, dashed, "*"] \\
 & N_3 &
\end{tikzcd}$$

Proof. Any β-reduction can be simulated by parallel reduction. Suppose $M \Longrightarrow_\beta N_1$ and $M \Longrightarrow_\beta N_2$. By lemma 1.1.2,

$$N_1 \Longrightarrow_\beta M^*_\beta \quad \text{and} \quad N_2 \Longrightarrow_\beta M^*_\beta.$$

Parallel reduction implies ordinary multi-step β-reduction: $N_1 \rightsquigarrow^*_\beta M^*_\beta$ and $N_2 \rightsquigarrow^*_\beta M^*_\beta$. Hence M^*_β is a common reduct. □

Remark 6. The untyped λ-calculus does not obey the Diamond property. The proof of this fact is given later on when we present fixed points and recursion **??**.

Corollary 1.1.4. Normalization: If a λ-term M reduces to two normal forms N_1 and N_2, then they are unique up to alpha-equivalece:

$$M \rightsquigarrow^*_\beta N_1 \text{ and } M \rightsquigarrow^*_\beta N_2 \text{ and } N_1, N_2 \text{ are normal } \Rightarrow N_1 =_\alpha N_2$$

Proof. By the Church-Rosser theorem, there exists a term P such that $N_1 \rightsquigarrow^*_\beta P$ and $N_2 \rightsquigarrow^*_\beta P$. Since N_1 and N_2 are normal forms, they cannot be reduced further. Thus, the only possible P is $N_1 =_\alpha N_2$. □

Looking at the big picture, we find this normalization property to be a non-trivial result that helps us verify that the λ-calculus is a deterministic model of computation. Meaning that if we take a program and run it, it will always give the same output for a given input. Of course, when we say a program, we mean a λ-term, and when we say run, we mean β-reduce. Perhaps the following section enables the reader to better grasp why we informally speak of lambda terms as programs.

1.1.3.2 Normalization

Normalization properties essentially summarize the termination properties of terms in the context of β-reduction.

Definition 1.1.19. Consider a lambda term M and all possible β-reduction sequences

$$M \equiv M_0 \rightsquigarrow_\beta M_1 \rightsquigarrow_\beta \cdots \rightsquigarrow_\beta M_n$$

$$M \equiv N_0 \rightsquigarrow_\beta N_1 \rightsquigarrow_\beta \cdots \rightsquigarrow_\beta$$

$$\cdots$$

We classify M as follows:

- M is strongly normalizing if every such reduction sequence terminates in a normal form. Equivalently, there is no infinite reduction sequence.

$$M \equiv M_0 \rightsquigarrow_\beta M_1 \rightsquigarrow_\beta M_2 \rightsquigarrow_\beta \cdots$$

- M is weakly normalizing if there exists at least one finite reduction sequence that terminates in a normal form.

$$M \equiv M_0 \rightsquigarrow_\beta \cdots \rightsquigarrow_\beta M_n$$

- M is non-normalizing if no reduction sequence starting from M ever reaches a normal form. In this case, every reduction path is either infinite or loops without producing a normal form.

Proposition 1.1.5. A term may be either, weakly normalizing, strongly normalizing or non-normalizing.

Proof. Examples are:

1. $\lambda x.x$ is strongly normalizing since it is already in normal form.
2. $\Omega = (\lambda x.xx)(\lambda x.xx)$ reduces to itself forever, hence non-normalizing.
3. $(\lambda x.y)\Omega \rightsquigarrow_\beta y$, so it has a normal form y, but reducing Ω loops, so it is weakly normalizing.

□

Remark 7. Checking whether a term is non-terminating or not is undecidable. It is an instance of the halting problem.

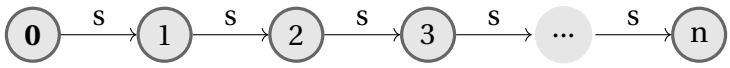
1.1.4 Relevant Constructions

This section presents a number of conventional constructions that represent key ideas common to computer science and other fields. We are specifically referring to natural numbers, branching statements, booleans and lists among others, as well as the operations over them. These constructions can be used to prove relevant statements concerning the expressiveness of the λ-calculus. Since natural numbers are of general importance they are the first to be introduced using peano axiomatics.

Definition 1.1.20. Peano Axioms, the set of natural numbers $\mathbb{N}$

- (Zero) $0 \in \mathbb{N}$
- (Successor) $\forall n \in \mathbb{N}, S(n) \in \mathbb{N}$
- (Initial) $\forall n \in \mathbb{N}, S(n) \neq 0$
- (Injectivity) $\forall n, m \in \mathbb{N}, S(n) = S(m) \Rightarrow n = m$
- (Induction) $P(0) \wedge \forall (P(n) \Rightarrow P(S(n))) \Rightarrow \forall n, P(n)$

The first four axioms can be summarized using a graph:



The last axiom is concerned with proving properties for all naturals given a precedent that satisfies the property and proof that if the property is satisfied for n then it is satisfied for $n+1$, then the property is true of all naturals.

Example 1.1.7. Say for instance we mean to represent 3 using Peano notation, using the graph, we would come up with $s(s(s(0)))$, since it is 3 steps away from 0.

Definition 1.1.21. To add and multiply natural numbers one can just use following the sets of rules:

$$n+m=\begin{cases} n & \text{if } m=0 \\ s(n+m') & \text{if } m=s(m') \end{cases} \qquad a\cdot b=\begin{cases} 0 & \text{if } b=0 \\ a\cdot b'+a & \text{if } b=s(b') \end{cases}$$

- $\underline{a+b}$: A recursive rule that performs the addition, and a base case to stop the recursion for n + 0, since there is no such number that has 0 as succesor.
- $\underline{a\cdot b}$: Using addition we define multiplication in a similar way, adding a as many times as the function s is applied to 0 in b.

1.1.4.1 Natural Numbers

Definition 1.1.22. Representation of the set of all naturals in the λ-calculus, usually referred to as Church numerals:

$$\begin{aligned} \texttt{0} &\equiv \lambda f.\lambda x.x \\ \texttt{SUCC} &\equiv \lambda n.\lambda f.\lambda x.f(nfx) \end{aligned}$$

Example 1.1.8. The church numerals have been defined similarly to the peano axioms, that is, by bringing into existance an initial element and using the succesor function to define the rest of them. Let us apply SUCC a few times to illustrate:

$$\begin{aligned} \texttt{0} &\equiv \lambda f.\lambda x.x \\ \texttt{1} &\equiv \lambda f.\lambda x.fx \\ \texttt{2} &\equiv \lambda f.\lambda x.ffx \\ \texttt{3} &\equiv \lambda f.\lambda x.fffx \\ \texttt{n} &\equiv \lambda f.\lambda x.f^n x \end{aligned}$$

where n denotes the number of times we append f.

Remark 8. Since λ-terms are first-class citizens, and f and x are abstracted away, the reality is that numbers are a quite general construct that has many distinct applications. Recall Example 1.1.6 for instance.

Definition 1.1.23. Now that we have a construction for the naturals, we can define some arithmetic operations:

$$\begin{aligned}
\texttt{ADD} &\equiv \lambda m.\lambda n.\lambda f.\lambda x.mf(nfx) \\
\texttt{MUL} &\equiv \lambda f.\lambda x.\lambda f.\lambda x.m(nf)x \\
\texttt{ISZERO} &\equiv \lambda n.n\,(\lambda x.\texttt{FALSE})\,\texttt{TRUE}
\end{aligned}$$

Example 1.1.9. Now we illustrate how addition works by performing $2+3$ with the system we defined.

$$\begin{aligned}
\texttt{ADD}\,2\,3 &\equiv (\lambda m.\lambda n.\lambda f.\lambda x.m\,f\,(n\,f\,x))\;(\lambda f.\lambda x.f\,f\,x)\;(\lambda f.\lambda x.f\,f\,f\,x) \\
&\leadsto_\beta^* \lambda f.\lambda x.\,(\lambda f.\lambda x.f\,f\,x)\;f\;((\lambda f.\lambda x.f\,f\,f\,x)\;f\;x) \\
&\leadsto_\beta^* \lambda f.\lambda x.\,(\lambda x.f\,f\,x)\;((\lambda x.f\,f\,f\,x)\;x) \\
&\leadsto_\beta (\lambda f.\lambda x.\,f\,f\,f\,f\,f\,x) \\
&\equiv 5
\end{aligned}$$

Multiplication works similarly to addition. As for `ISZERO`, the intuition behind it is that if the number is zero, then $\lambda x.\texttt{FALSE}$ is dropped, and the result is `TRUE`; otherwise, it is applied at least once, which immediately yields `FALSE`.

Remark 9. This proves that the λ-calculus is capable of arithmetic, we leave them as a sidequest since we will not be extending or using them or in the rest of the text.

1.1.4.2 Booleans & Branching

The next constructions in line are the truth values of boolean logic, "*true*" and "*false*" for short.

Definition 1.1.24. Boolean truth values:

$$\begin{aligned}
\texttt{TRUE} &\equiv \lambda t.\lambda f.t \\
\texttt{FALSE} &\equiv \lambda t.\lambda f.f
\end{aligned}$$

Remark 10. Note how $\texttt{TRUE}\;M\;N \leadsto_\beta M$ and $\texttt{FALSE}\;M\;N \leadsto_\beta N$

Definition 1.1.25. Conditional, in other words *"if statement"*.

$$\texttt{IF} \equiv \lambda b.\lambda t.\lambda e.b\,t\,e$$

The `IF` statement is just a combinator that happens to behave similarly to a branching statement whenever we pass a church encoded boolean as a first argument.

Example 1.1.10. On the correct behabiour of IF i.e. check that it implements branching. $M, N \in \Lambda$ and IF, TRUE, FALSE are as usual:

$$\begin{aligned} & \texttt{IF}\ \texttt{TRUE}\ M\ N \\ \equiv\ & (\lambda b.\lambda t.\lambda e.\, b\, t\, e)\ \texttt{TRUE}\ M\ N \\ \rightsquigarrow_\beta\ & (\lambda t.\lambda e.\texttt{TRUE}\ t\, e)\ M\ N \\ \rightsquigarrow_\beta\ & (\lambda e.\texttt{TRUE}\ M\, e)\ N \\ \rightsquigarrow_\beta\ & \texttt{TRUE}\ M\, N \rightsquigarrow_\beta^* M \end{aligned} \qquad \begin{aligned} & \texttt{IF}\ \texttt{FALSE}\ M\ N \\ \rightsquigarrow_\beta^*\ & \texttt{FALSE}\ M\, N \rightsquigarrow_\beta^* N \end{aligned}$$

So the IF just combines b, t, e in such a way that whenever b is a church encoded boolean either t or e is dropped depending on the truth value of b. See Remark 10. From this example we extract that $\lambda x.x$ is equivalent to IF it terms of behaviour, and thus, we could use $\texttt{IF} \equiv \lambda x.x$ interchangeably.

Remark 11. Using the IF we can implement an universal set of logic gates:

$$\begin{aligned} \texttt{NOT} &\equiv \texttt{IF}\, b\, \texttt{FALSE}\, \texttt{TRUE} \\ \texttt{AND} &\equiv \texttt{IF}\, a\, (\texttt{IF}\, b\, \texttt{TRUE}\, \texttt{FALSE})\, \texttt{FALSE} \end{aligned}$$

This allows us to simulate a nand gate, known to be universal. Thus, the lambda calculus is at least equivalent to propositional logic. Something on turing completeness.

1.1.4.3 Lists from Pairs

On the same track, another must-have for programmers is lists. Sice they are a bit more involved, we require tuples to define them. Note that the IF is a tuple that contains two elements, we query the first element using a TRUE i.e. the *"then"* branch, and the sencond using a FALSE i.e. the *"else"* branch. We will be using this alternative definition for convenience:

Definition 1.1.26. $\texttt{PAIR} \equiv \lambda x.\lambda y.\lambda f.f\, x\, y$

Remark 12. This is more convenient since $\texttt{PAIR}\, M\, N \rightsquigarrow_\beta^* \lambda f.f\, M\, N$, which allows us to query the first element using $(\lambda f.f\, M\, N)\, \texttt{TRUE}$ and the second by $(\lambda f.f\, M\, N)\, \texttt{FALSE}$, this motivates the definition below:

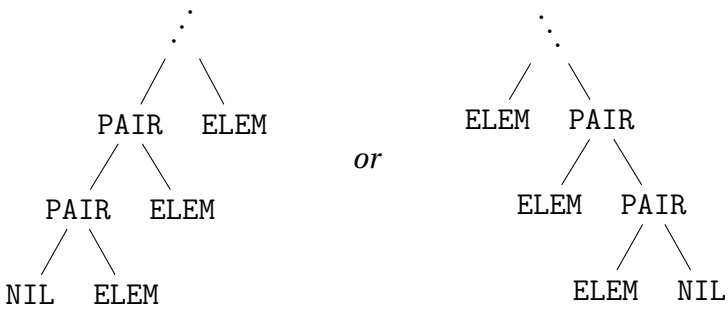
Definition 1.1.27. A PAIR is nothing but a relation $\langle A, B\rangle \in A \times B$. We now define the corresponding projections $\pi_1\langle A, B\rangle = A$ as FST and $\pi_1\langle A, B\rangle = B$ as SND:

$$\begin{aligned} \texttt{FST} &\equiv \lambda p.p\, (\lambda x.\lambda y.x) \\ \texttt{SND} &\equiv \lambda p.p\, (\lambda x.\lambda y.y) \end{aligned}$$

Proposition 1.1.6. A key property of PAIR's is:

$$\texttt{PAIR}\, A\, B \equiv_\beta \texttt{PAIR}\, (\texttt{FST}\, (\texttt{PAIR}\, A\, B))\, (\texttt{SND}\, (\texttt{PAIR}\, A\, B))$$

Using pairs, we now can define linear lists, we can achieve this using either left linear trees or right linear trees:



Definition 1.1.28. We define NIL in the same way we defined 0 and FALSE before: $\texttt{NIL} \equiv \lambda f.\lambda z.z$; NIL represents the terminating element of the inductive definition for lists. To build lists, we cons lists together using:

$$\texttt{CONS} \equiv \lambda h.\lambda t.\lambda f.\lambda z.f\,h\,(t\,f\,z)$$

that binds a new element h to to an pre-existing list or to NIL.

Note 12. This notion of inductively defined lists is lays the foundations of the **LISP** family of programming languages, hence the name (LISt Processing).

Definition 1.1.29. Some other relevant list operators:

$$\texttt{ISNIL} \equiv \lambda l.l\,(\lambda h.\lambda t.\texttt{FALSE})\,\texttt{TRUE}$$
$$\texttt{HEAD} \equiv \lambda l.l\,(\lambda h.\lambda t.h)$$

checkandaddTAIL

1.1.5 Fixed Point Combinators and Recursion

The Church Rosser Property labels the untyped λ-calculus as a confluent system, therefore we know that whenever a term has a normal form it must be unique. what we did cover We still have not given an answer to whether all λ-terms have a normal form.

The most straight forward way to test this, is to check whether there exists some term that reduces to itself, effectively creating a loop in the β-reduction chain so to speak. In more formal terms this means there exists some M such that $M \rightsquigarrow_\beta^n M$ with $n > 0$. It turns out $\Omega \equiv (\lambda x.\,x\,x)(\lambda x.\,x\,x)$ fullfills this requirement. Let us inspect what goes on while β-reducing this term:

$$\Omega \equiv (\lambda x.\,x\,x)(\lambda x.\,x\,x) \rightsquigarrow_\beta (\lambda x.\,x\,x)(\lambda x.\,x\,x) \rightsquigarrow_\beta^* (\lambda x.\,x\,x)(\lambda x.\,x\,x) \equiv \Omega$$

This so called Ω-combinator, proves that not all terms have a normal form, and shines a beam of light onto how recursion can be achieved in the λ-calculus.

There is one caveat to this, that classically, recursion is achieved through naming, take for instance this definition for the gdc:

$$\underline{\text{gcd}}(a, b) = \begin{cases} a & b = 0 \\ \underline{\text{gcd}}(b, a \bmod b) & b \neq 0 \end{cases}$$

1.1.5.1 Fixed Points

Here, when $b \neq 0$ the name gcd is used to refer to the same definition again. In the λ-calculus such self-referencing definitions are not permited since the language does not allow names. To bypass this setback the notion of fixed point is of particular interest.

Definition 1.1.30. Let $f : X \to X$ be a function. An element $x \in X$ is called a fixed point of f if $f(x) = x$.

Example 1.1.11. Some simple functions that illustrate what fixed points are:

Function	*Fixed Point(s)*
$f(x) = c$	$x = c$
$g(x) = x$	$\{x \mid x \in \mathbb{R}\}$
$h(x) = x^2$	$x = 0, x = 1$

This harmless idea satisfies an interesting property, namely that $x = f(x) = f(f(x)) = f^n(x)$ effectively creating a chain where every element $f^{n+1}(x) = f(f^n(x))$, thus attaining self-reference without naming. This idempotent behaviour under application is important, since it showcases the ability of fixed points to induce recursion. Our quest now, is to find a term that simulates this behavior. To do this, let us translate the definition for fixed point into the λ-world.

Definition 1.1.31. Given a lambda term $L \in \Lambda$, a term $M \in \Lambda$ is called a fixed point of L if $M =_\beta LM$.

No surprises here, the definition is close to a one-to-one mapping of its functional counterpart seen previously. Interestingly enough, it turns out that every lambda term has a fixed point, as stated in the theorem proven below:

Theorem 1.1.7. For every $L \in \Lambda$, there exists $M \in \Lambda$ such that M is a fixed point for M i.e. $M =_\beta LM$. Referred to as the Fixed Point Theorem in the literature.

Proof. Given $L \in \Lambda$, define M as below:

$$M := (\lambda x.\, L(x\,x))(\lambda x.\, L(x\,x))$$

M is a reducible expression:

$$\begin{aligned} M &\equiv (\lambda x.\, L(x\,x))(\lambda x.\, L(x\,x)) \\ &\rightsquigarrow_\beta L((\lambda x.\, L(x\,x))(\lambda x.\, L(x\,x))) \\ &\equiv L\,M. \end{aligned}$$

Hence, $M =_\beta LM$, as required. □

Remark 13. See how LM is the application of M to L and that using APPR we can keep β-reducing M the same way we did for $x = f(x) = f(f(x))\ldots$ only this time using lambda terms:

$$M \rightsquigarrow_\beta LM \rightsquigarrow_\beta LLM \rightsquigarrow_\beta^* L^n M.$$

1.1.5.2 Recursive Combinators

Now that nameless self-reference has been proven to exist within the the λ-calculus, we take a step forward and introduce a few of the most important fixed point combinators and explore their different natures.

Definition 1.1.32. Y Combinator. This is the term that given some other term returns its fixed point.

$$Y \triangleq \lambda f.\,(\lambda x.\,f\,(x\,x))\,(\lambda x.\,f\,(x\,x))$$

Remark 14. Even though the Y combinator is of theoretical interest since it allows us to find recursion within the λ-calculus, it is of little practical under strict evaluation since it always runs into non-termination e.g.

$$\begin{aligned}
Y\,F &\equiv (\lambda f.\,(\lambda x.\,f\,(x\,x))(\lambda x.\,f\,(x\,x)))F \\
&\rightsquigarrow_\beta (\lambda x.\,F\,(x\,x))(\lambda x.\,F\,(x\,x)) \\
&\rightsquigarrow_\beta F((\lambda x.\,F\,(x\,x))(\lambda x.\,F\,(x\,x))) \\
&\rightsquigarrow_\beta F(F((\lambda x.\,F\,(x\,x))(\lambda x.\,F\,(x\,x)))) \\
&\rightsquigarrow_\beta \cdots
\end{aligned}$$

Under strict evaluation, the argument F is not evaluated until Y is done unraveling i.e. never.

To work around this issue, several other combinators exist, the Z and the Turing combinators are two of the better known ones:

Definition 1.1.33. Z combinator

$$Z \triangleq \lambda f.\,(\lambda x.\,f\,(\lambda v.\,x\,x\,v))\,(\lambda x.\,f\,(\lambda v.\,x\,x\,v))$$

Example 1.1.12.

$$\begin{aligned}
Z\,F &\equiv (\lambda f.\,(\lambda x.\,f\,(\lambda v.\,x\,x\,v))\,(\lambda x.\,f\,(\lambda v.\,x\,x\,v)))\,F \\
&\rightsquigarrow_\beta (\lambda x.\,F\,(\lambda v.\,x\,x\,v))\,(\lambda x.\,F\,(\lambda v.\,x\,x\,v)) \\
&\rightsquigarrow_\beta F\,(\lambda v.\,(\lambda x.\,F\,(\lambda v.\,x\,x\,v))\,(\lambda x.\,F\,(\lambda v.\,x\,x\,v))\,v) \\
&\equiv F\,(\lambda v.\,Z\,F\,v)
\end{aligned}$$

Definition 1.1.34. Turing combinator

$$\Theta \triangleq (\lambda x.\,\lambda y.\,y\,(x\,x\,y))\,(\lambda x.\,\lambda y.\,y\,(x\,x\,y))$$

1.1.5.3 λ-Calculus Implementation of Factorial

Classically, factorial is defined as $n! = \prod_{k=1}^{n} k$, that has the following recursive interpretation $n! = n \cdot (n-1)!$ with $0! = 1$. This section develops a worked out example of how to implement this in the λ-calculus.

Example 1.1.13. Implementing factorial using the acquired toolkit:

$$\texttt{fact}\ n = \texttt{if then else}\ (\texttt{iszero}\ n)\ (1)\ (\texttt{mult}\ n\ (\texttt{fact}\ (\texttt{pred}\ n))).$$

The evident problem with a recursive definition such as this one is that the term to be defined, `fact`, appears both on the left- and the right-hand side. In other words, to find `fact` requires solving an equation!

We now apply our newfound knowledge of how to solve fixed point equations in the lambda calculus. We start by rewriting the problem slightly:

$$\texttt{fact} = \lambda n.\ \texttt{if then else}\ (\texttt{iszero}\ n)\ (1)\ (\texttt{mult}\ n\ (\texttt{fact}\ (\texttt{pred}\ n))),$$

$$\texttt{fact} = \big(\lambda f.\lambda n.\ \texttt{if then else}\ (\texttt{iszero}\ n)\ (1)\ (\texttt{mult}\ n\ (f\ (\texttt{pred}\ n)))\big)\ \texttt{fact}.$$

Let us temporarily write F for the term

$$F = \lambda f.\lambda n.\ \texttt{if then else}\ (\texttt{iszero}\ n)\ (1)\ (\texttt{mult}\ n\ (f\ (\texttt{pred}\ n))).$$

Then the last equation becomes $\texttt{fact} = F\,\texttt{fact}$, which is a fixed point equation. We can solve it up to β-equivalence by letting

$$\texttt{fact} = \Theta F = \Theta\big(\lambda f.\lambda n.\ \texttt{if then else}\ (\texttt{iszero}\ n)\ (1)\ (\texttt{mult}\ n\ (f\ (\texttt{pred}\ n)))\big).$$

1.1.6 Conclusions

We have covered some of the most important notions that surround the untyped λ-calculus. It has been shown to satisfy the Church-Rosser property of confluence, it has also been shown that this property is not the strongest of its kind. It could be argued it is in fact the weakest. For this reason, it is in our best interest to add some spice to the λ-calculus by means typing. This is to try and make it comply with some stronger requirements than the Church-Rosser property. There exist several typing flavors, the list shows the three basic categories:

- **Untyped**: Where the type of expressions is never specified. As we have seen, this gives us maximal expressiveness at the cost of being unsafe. Informally, this means we are at a risk of composing unrelated terms that produce miscalculations. For instance xM.

- **Simply Typed**: Every expression is annotated with a type. This would be equivalent to the usual set theoretic approach to computation where functions have well defined domain and codomain.

- **Polymorphically Typed**: This is an intermediate situation, where we may specify the form of the type $X \to X$, without actually specifying X.

This alternatives have dramatically different properties from one another. We will cover them in some detail throughout the text.

1.2 Simply Typed λ-Calculus

We covered the untyped λ-calculus, highlighting its strengths and limitations. This section introduces the notion of typing, which restricts its expressiveness while improving the tractability of studying its properties. The idea of typing arises from the usual definition of a function, understood as a mapping between elements of sets. For example, consider a function $f : A \to B$ defined by $a \mapsto f(a)$, where we recognize A as the domain and B as the codomain. Notice how the mapping is meaningful only within this context–otherwise f would lack sense. Hence, the important of restricting what a function can take as an input as well as what it may yield as an output.

In the context of the λ-calculus, types serve as a means of restriction, similar ho how we use logical predicates to define sets. Just as $f : ? \to ?$ is refined to $f : A \to B$ by specifying requirements on the arguments and ensuring properties of the outputs, we use types to impose requirements on the arguments of an abstraction and to ensure properties of the reduction process of that term.

Since the λ-calculus treats all terms as first-class citizens, attempting to impose restrictions directly on arguments is not effective. Instead, we define restrictions on all terms by pairing each term with additional information called a *type*. This tells us about the nature of a given term, which may be of two kinds: a simple type or arrow type $\to$. Introducing a typing system into the λ-calculus splits Λ into two categories: Typable and Non-typable terms. These sets are disjoint. This simple type system classifies expressions such as $x(\lambda y.y)$ or Y as untypable, while $\lambda x.x$ has type $\alpha \to \alpha$.

In the following we present minimal and extended simple types as well as the different i.e. Church and Curry style.

1.2.0.1 Minimal Typing

The untyped version of the λ-calculus relies on abstraction and application. Minimal typing captures this simply by using base types and arrow types.

Definition 1.2.1. The set of minimal simple types $\mathscr{T}$ is defined inductively as follows:

- (Type variable) If $\alpha \in \mathscr{B}$, then $\alpha \in \mathscr{T}$.
- (Arrow type) If $\sigma, \tau \in \mathscr{T}$, then $(\sigma \to \tau) \in \mathscr{T}$.

where $\mathscr{B}$ is a countably infinite set of base types. In abstract syntax:

$$\mathscr{T} ::= \mathscr{B} \mid (\mathscr{T} \to \mathscr{T})$$

Note 13. These minimal types are the most basic types one can apply to the λ-calculus, this is with respect to extended types, that use products and sums to add expressiveness.

Notation 3. In general, greek letters $\alpha, \beta, \gamma, \ldots$ are standard to denote type names.

Notation 4. The convention is that $\rightarrow$ is right associative, that is: $\alpha \rightarrow \gamma \rightarrow \alpha$ is the same as $(\alpha \rightarrow (\gamma \rightarrow \alpha))$.

Example 1.2.1. Examples of simple types include:

$$\gamma \quad (\beta \rightarrow \gamma) \quad ((\gamma \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma)))$$

Definition 1.2.2. A context Γ is a finite mapping from variables to simple types, defined inductively by:

$$\Gamma ::= \cdot \mid \Gamma, x : \sigma$$

where

- $\cdot$ is the empty context
- x is a variable and $\sigma \in \mathscr{T}$ is a simple type
- $\Gamma, x : \sigma$ extends Γ by mapping x to σ
- $\mathrm{dom}(\Gamma) = \{x \mid x : \sigma \in \Gamma\}$
- $\mathrm{rng}(\Gamma) = \{\sigma \mid x : \sigma \in \Gamma\}$

A context is often represented as a finite sequence:

$$\Gamma = x_1 : \sigma_1, x_2 : \sigma_2, \ldots, x_n : \sigma_n$$

with all x_i distinct.

With this in mind we distinguish two alternative methods for typing. Typing à la Church, where types are annotated alongside λ-terms. And Typing a la Curry, where typing judgements are provided externally through some inference method like the Hindley-Milner algorithm. Church's style of typing adds syntax on top of the already defined λ-calculus. It can be said that while Church's typing introduces rules to generate well-typed terms, Curry's approach infers types from untyped expressions.

- Curry-style:
$$\lambda x.x \quad \text{with} \quad \vdash \lambda x.x : \sigma \rightarrow \sigma$$
- Church-style:
$$\lambda x : \sigma.x \quad \text{with} \quad \vdash \lambda x : \sigma.x : \sigma \rightarrow \sigma$$

Note how Curry's style allows us to assign different valid types to terms. For example, $(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \beta)$ could be a valid type assignment for $\lambda x.x$, do not confuse this polymorphism.

1.2.0.2 Typing à la Curry

Definition 1.2.3. We define the following typing relation:

$$\frac{x \notin \mathrm{dom}(\Gamma)}{\Gamma, x : \tau \vdash x : \tau}\ \textsc{Var} \qquad \frac{x \notin \mathrm{dom}(\Gamma) \quad \Gamma, x : \sigma \vdash M : \tau}{\Gamma \vdash \lambda x.M : \sigma \to \tau}\ \textsc{Abs}$$

$$\frac{\Gamma \vdash M : \sigma \to \tau \qquad \Gamma \vdash N : \sigma}{\Gamma \vdash M\,N : \tau}\ \textsc{App}$$

Example 1.2.2. In this example we verify that is a valid type for using Curry style of typing.

$$\frac{\dfrac{\Gamma, x : \sigma \vdash \lambda x.\, f\, x : \tau}{\Gamma \vdash \lambda f.\lambda x.\, f\, x : (\alpha \to \alpha) \to (\alpha \to \alpha)}\ \textsc{Abs} \qquad \dfrac{\dfrac{}{\Gamma, y : \alpha \vdash y : \alpha}\ \textsc{Var}}{\Gamma \vdash \lambda y.\, y : \alpha \to \alpha}\ \textsc{Abs}}{\vdash (\lambda f.\lambda x.\, f\, x)(\lambda y.\, y) : \alpha \to \alpha}\ \textsc{App}$$

Note 14. Notice that we can replace α by any other basic type and the derivation tree would still hold. Moreover, we could replace y by a different term with a different type and the structure of the tree would hold as long as we also replace α with the corresponging type.

Example 1.2.3. Let σ, τ, ρ be arbitrary types. Then:

- $\vdash \lambda x.x : \sigma \to \sigma$
- $\vdash \lambda x.\lambda y.x : \sigma \to \tau \to \sigma$
- $\vdash \lambda x.\lambda y.\lambda z.x\,z\,(y\,z) : (\sigma \to \tau \to \rho) \to (\sigma \to \tau) \to \sigma \to \rho$

Definition 1.2.4. If $\Gamma \vdash M : \sigma$, then we say that M has type σ in Γ. A term M is typable if there exist Γ and σ such that $\Gamma \vdash M : \sigma$.

1.2.0.3 Typing à la Church

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For the rest of the text we will consider typing a la church.

1.2.1 Extended Typing

As discussed, minimal typing is the simplest form of typing. It follows from this statement that it can be extended. Here we introduce products that can be thought of as records or structs:

Definition 1.2.5. Extended types $\mathscr{T}^{\times}$ is defined inductively as:

$$\mathscr{T}^{\times} ::= \mathscr{B} \mid \mathscr{T}^{\times} \to \mathscr{T}^{\times} \mid \mathscr{T}^{\times} \times \mathscr{T}^{\times} \mid 1$$

where $\mathscr{B}$ is the set of base types.

Definition 1.2.6. The set of raw terms $\Lambda^\times$ is defined by:

$$\Lambda^\times ::= x \mid \lambda x : \mathscr{T}.\ \Lambda^\times \mid \Lambda^\times\ \Lambda^\times \mid \langle \Lambda^\times, \Lambda^\times \rangle \mid \pi_1 \Lambda^\times \mid \pi_2 \Lambda^\times \mid *$$

Here:

- $x \in \mathscr{V}$, a countable set of variables
- $\lambda x : \mathscr{T}.\ \Lambda^\times$ is function abstraction with type annotation
- $\langle \Lambda^\times, \Lambda^\times \rangle$ is the term constructor for product values
- π_1 and π_2 are projections on product terms
- $*$ is the unique term of type 1

Definition 1.2.7. Given $t \in \Lambda^\times$, typing judgments are of the form $\Gamma \vdash t : \mathscr{T}$, where Γ is a context $x_1 : T_1, \ldots, x_n : T_n$. The typing rules for $\Lambda^\times$ are:

$$\frac{}{\Gamma \vdash * : 1}\ \textsc{Unit} \qquad \frac{}{\Gamma, x : A \vdash x : A}\ \textsc{Var}$$

$$\frac{\Gamma \vdash m : a \to b \qquad \Gamma \vdash n : a}{\Gamma \vdash m\,n : b}\ \textsc{App} \qquad \frac{\Gamma, x : A \vdash M : B}{\Gamma \vdash \lambda x : A.\ M : A \to B}\ \textsc{Abs}$$

$$\frac{\Gamma \vdash M : A \qquad \Gamma \vdash N : B}{\Gamma \vdash \langle M, N \rangle : A \times B}\ \textsc{Pair} \qquad \frac{\Gamma \vdash M : A \times B}{\Gamma \vdash \pi_1 M : A}\ \textsc{Proj}_1 \qquad \frac{\Gamma \vdash M : A \times B}{\Gamma \vdash \pi_2 M : B}\ \textsc{Proj}_2$$

1.2.1.0.1 Reduction. The operational semantics extends β-reduction:

$$(\lambda x : A.\ t)\ u \to t[x := u], \quad \pi_1(t, u) \to t, \quad \pi_2(t, u) \to u.$$

Chapter 2

Intuitionistic Logic

To motivate the introduction of Intuitionistic Logic, we present a theorem and two different styles of proof from T. O. L. Project 2025:

Theorem 2.0.1. There are irrational numbers a and b such that a^b is rational.

Proof. Let $a, b = \sqrt{2}$

- If $\sqrt{2}^{\sqrt{2}}$ is rational, we are done.
- Otherwise, $\sqrt{2}^{\sqrt{2}}$ is irrational and we can consider $a = \sqrt{2}^{\sqrt{2}}$ and $b = \sqrt{2}$. In which case:
$$a^b = \left(\sqrt{2}^{\sqrt{2}}\right)^{\sqrt{2}} = \sqrt{2}^{\sqrt{2}\cdot\sqrt{2}} = \sqrt{2}^2 = 2,$$
which is rational so a and b must exist.

□

This is a perfectly valid proof. However, it is somewhat unsatisfying, since it proves existence without exhibiting a specific pair. A more constructive proof is as follows

Proof. Take $a = \sqrt{3}$ and $b = \log_3 4$. Then

$$a^b = \left(\sqrt{3}\right)^{\log_3 4} = 3^{\frac{1}{2}\log_3 4} = \left(3^{\log_3 4}\right)^{1/2} = 4^{1/2} = 2,$$

which is rational. □

2.1 Syntax

The syntax for intuitionistic logic is the same as that of propositional logic. Where $\vee, \wedge, \rightarrow$ are used as binary connectives to compose logical statements and $\neg$ is used to negate such statements.

Definition 2.1.1. The set $\mathrm{Frm}(L_0)$ of formulas of propositional intuitionistic logic is defined inductively as follows:

- $\bot$ is an atomic formula.
- Every propositional variable p_i is an atomic formula.
- If φ and ψ are formulas, then $(\varphi \wedge \psi)$ is a formula.
- If φ and ψ are formulas, then $(\varphi \vee \psi)$ is a formula.
- If φ and ψ are formulas, then $(\varphi \to \psi)$ is a formula.
- Nothing else is a formula.

In addition to the primitive connectives introduced above, we also use the following defined symbols:

- $\neg\varphi$ abbreviates $(\varphi \to \bot)$.
- $\varphi \leftrightarrow \psi$ abbreviates $(\varphi \to \psi) \wedge (\psi \to \varphi)$.

2.1.1 Natural Deduction

The rules of natural deduction for intuitionistic propositional logic (without $\bot C$) can be presented as follows:

Introduction Rules

$$\frac{\varphi \qquad \psi}{\varphi \wedge \psi}\,\wedge\mathrm{I} \qquad\qquad \frac{[\varphi]^u \qquad \psi}{\varphi \to \psi}\,\to\mathrm{I}$$

$$\frac{\varphi}{\varphi \vee \psi}\,\vee\mathrm{I_1} \qquad\qquad \frac{\psi}{\varphi \vee \psi}\,\vee\mathrm{I_2}$$

$$\frac{[\varphi]^n \qquad \bot}{\neg\varphi}\,\neg\mathrm{I}$$

Elimination / Simplification Rules

$$\frac{\varphi \wedge \psi}{\varphi}\,\wedge\mathrm{E_1} \qquad\qquad \frac{\varphi \wedge \psi}{\psi}\,\wedge\mathrm{E_2}$$

$$\frac{\varphi \to \psi \qquad \varphi}{\psi}\,\to\mathrm{E}$$

$$\frac{\varphi \vee \psi \qquad [\varphi]^n \qquad \chi \qquad [\psi]^n \qquad \chi}{\chi}\,\vee\mathrm{E}$$

$$\frac{\bot}{\varphi}\,\bot\mathrm{E} \qquad\qquad \frac{\varphi \qquad \neg\varphi}{\bot}\,\neg\mathrm{E}$$

Chapter 3

Introduction to Category Theory

Category theory abstracts the notion of internal structure and studies mathematical objects indirectly through their connections to other objects. In practical terms, instead of studying objects in isolation, category theory shifts the focus onto morphisms among objects, and instead of studying mathematical entities from a definitional stand point, it emphasizes the importance of how constructions relate to one another.

The rule-book of categorical thinking keeps us away from manipulating mathematical objects directly, it also offers a categorical lens as a tool to look at constructions in a holistic spirit. This lens abstracts away the details of mathematical constructions but enables a more general approach to problems. This perspective unifies many areas of mathematics under a common language.

Category theory offers extreme generality and has great power when it comes to unifying seemingly unrelated fields. Which often misleads people into interpreting it as a unifying theory of mathematics that has no practical applications, when in reality it is more like a tool used to create blueprints that describe mathematical environments and their properties. It is also commonly used to give structure to patterns that repeat within different fields of mathematics. In some instances, category theory serves as a medium for transporting mathematical statements–such as theorems or lemmas–between domains. A categorical formulation of such results can often be translated to other contexts via functors or equivalences of categories.

One of the fields that benefits from the practical applications of categorical reasoning is computer science, deeply related to category theory through type theory, intuitionistic logic and natural deduction. We only mention CCC's and LCCC's as relevant constructions in the effort not to give away the purpose of the chapter. The unifying nature of categories brings us closer to the central focus of this work.

3.1 Fundamentals of Category Theory

Let us begin our dive into categories by defining what they are:

Definition 3.1.1. A category $\mathscr{C}$ consists of:

- A collection of objects $\mathbf{Ob}(\mathscr{C})$
- A collection of arrows or morphisims where each arrow f has a domain object $\mathbf{dom}(f)$ and a codomain object $\mathbf{cod}(f)$. These can be defined using $f : A \to B$ to signify $\mathbf{dom}(f) = A$ and $\mathbf{cod}(f) = B$
- A composition operator assigning to each pair of arrows f and g, with $cod(f) = dom(g)$, a composite arrow $g \circ f : \mathbf{dom}(f) \to \mathbf{cod}(g)$ satisfying the following associative law:

  $$h \circ (g \circ f) = (h \circ g) \circ f$$

  where $f : A \to B, g : B \to C, h : C \to D$ are arrows of a category
- For each object A, an identity arrow $id_A : A \to A$ satisfying the following identity law:

  $$id_B \circ f = f \quad f \circ id_A = f$$

  for any $f : A \to B$

Remark 15. Literature on the topic usually differentiates between small and large categories. Small categories are those whose collection of objects and whose collection of arrows are both sets. Large categories allow for collections of objects or arrows that are proper classes rather than sets. We will only be concerned with small categories.

Various mathematical constructs fit the description of a category. For example, the category **Set** consists of sets as objects and functions as morphisms, where composition is ordinary function composition and identities are identity functions. Another example is the category **Grp**, whose objects are groups and whose morphisms are group homomorphisms. More on this later.

Definition 3.1.2. In a category $\mathscr{C}$, for any two objects $A, B \in \mathbf{Ob}(\mathscr{C})$, the hom-set from A to B is the set of all morphisms from A to B. This set is denoted by $\mathbf{Hom}(A, B)$.

$$\mathbf{Hom}(A, B) = \{f \mid f\colon A \to B \text{ is a morphism in } \mathscr{C}\}$$

Example 3.1.1. Let $\mathscr{C}$ denote a category, consisting of a set of objects, $\mathbf{Ob}(\mathscr{C})$, and a set of arrows, $\mathbf{Hom}(\mathscr{C})$, satisfying the category axioms.

- **empty category**, denoted by $\mathbf{0}$, is the category with no objects and no morphisms.

  $$\mathrm{Ob}(\mathbf{0}) = \emptyset, \quad \mathrm{Hom}(\mathbf{0}) = \emptyset$$

- **terminal category** (or **point category**), denoted by $\mathbf{1}$, is the category with a single object and a single morphism, which must be the identity morphism on that object. Formally,

$$\mathrm{Ob}(\mathbf{1}) = \{*\}, \quad \mathrm{Hom}(\mathbf{1}) = \{\mathrm{id}_*\}$$

  where $\mathrm{id}_* : * \to *$ is the identity morphism on $*$.

- **category 2**, often representing the poset $A \leq B$, is a category with two objects and three morphisms. Formally,

$$\mathrm{Ob}(\mathbf{2}) = \{A, B\}, \quad \mathrm{Hom}(\mathbf{2}) = \{\mathrm{id}_A, \mathrm{id}_B, f\}$$

  where $\mathrm{id}_A : A \to A$ and $\mathrm{id}_B : B \to B$ are identity morphisms, and $f : A \to B$ is a unique non-identity morphism. The compositions are defined as $f \circ \mathrm{id}_A = f$ and $\mathrm{id}_B \circ f = f$.

The most elemental category is the category that has no elements and no arrows, it is commonly represented with a 0. Category 1 contains one object and one identity arrow, as required by the definition. Category 2 contains three arrows, the identities and one arrow from 1 to 2. Category 3 builds up on this as is observed in the following diagram:

$$\begin{tikzcd}
1 \arrow[loop right, "id_1"] & \\
id_1 \arrow[loop left] 1 \arrow[r] & 2 \arrow[loop right, "id_2"]
\end{tikzcd}
\qquad
\begin{tikzcd}
 & 2 \arrow[loop right, "id_2"] \arrow[d] \\
id_1 \arrow[loop left] 1 \arrow[ur] \arrow[r] & 3 \arrow[loop right, "id_3"]
\end{tikzcd}$$

Example 3.1.2. In this example we show that **Set** is a category where objects correspond to sets $A, B, C, \ldots$ and arrows to functions. For $f : A \to B$ and $g : B \to C$, composition of functions is $(g \circ f)(a) = g(f(a))$, which is a function $g \circ f : A \to C$. Composition is associative since for $h : C \to D$ we have that: $h \circ (g \circ f)(a) = h(g(f(a))) = (h \circ g)(f(a)) = (h \circ g) \circ f(a)$. Lastly, each set A, the identity morphism is $\mathrm{id}_A(a) = a$, satisfying $f \circ \mathrm{id}_A = f = \mathrm{id}_B \circ f$. Therefore, **Set** is a category. □

Example 3.1.3. In this example we show that any partially ordered set $(P, \leq)$ can be viewed as a category **Pos** whose objects are elements of P and there is a unique arrow $p \to q$ if and only if $p \leq q$. Composition is defined by transitivity: if $p \leq q$ and $q \leq r$, then $p \leq r$, so the composite $p \to r$ exists and is unique. Associativity holds automatically since there is at most one arrow between any two objects. Lastly, each $p \in P$ has an identity arrow $p \to p$ that corresponds to the reflexivity property of partial orders. Therefore, every poset defines a category. □

There exist several well known categories tied to mathematics and compite. Category of categories... Monoid

to build some intuition on why categories relate to programs que alguien que controle corrija el siquiente ejemplo q es mas inventado que que los gamusinos

Category	Description
Set	Sets as objects, functions as morphisms.
Grp	Groups and group homomorphisms.
Ring	Rings and ring homomorphisms.
$\mathbf{Mod}_R$	Modules over a ring R and R-linear maps.
$\mathbf{Vect}_k$	Vector spaces over field k and linear maps.
Top	Topological spaces and continuous functions.
Man	Smooth manifolds with smooth maps.
Hilb	Hilbert spaces and bounded linear maps.

Table 3.1: Key mathematical categories.

Category	Description
Mon	Monoids and monoid homomorphisms.
CPO	Complete partial orders and continuous maps.
Dom	Domains as posets with Scott-continuous maps.
Rel	Sets and binary relations as morphisms.
Pfn	Sets and partial functions as morphisms.
Par	Sets and partial maps (generalized morphisms).
$\mathbf{Kl}(T)$	Kleisli category of a monad T on a base category.
$\mathbf{Endo}(\mathbf{Set})$	Endofunctors on the category of sets.

Table 3.2: Key categories in computer science.

Example 3.1.4. Let us consider a simple functional programming language with the following types:

$$T ::= \text{Nat} \mid \text{Bool} \mid T \times T \mid T \to T$$

The type system is closed under product and function type constructors. A valid compound type is $(\text{Nat} \times \text{Bool}) \to \text{Nat}$. A categorical interpretation of this scenario reveals types are objects and functions morphisms.

Identity $\text{id}_A : A \to A$ can be defined as $\text{id}_A = \lambda x{:}A.\, x$, which is well-typed. Identity laws are verified trivially: $\text{id}_B \circ f = f = f \circ \text{id}_A$.

Compositionality is defined as sequential application of functions that share domain and codomain through $f : A \to B$ and $g : B \to C$ like $g \circ f : A \to C$ by $g \circ f = \lambda x{:}A.\, g(f(x))$, which is well-typed by function application.

Composition is associative due to β-equivalence in lambda calculus:

$$h \circ (g \circ f) = \lambda x{:}A.h(g(f(x))) = (h \circ g) \circ f$$

Therefore, **FL** satisfies all axioms of a category.

Aside from defining categories from mathematical objects, categores can be built from other categories. One way to do this is via opposite categories.

Definition 3.1.3. For a category $\mathscr{C}$, the opposite or dual category $\mathscr{C}^{op}$ is defined by:

- $\mathrm{Ob}(\mathscr{C}^{op}) = \mathrm{Ob}(\mathscr{C})$,
- For $A, B \in \mathrm{Ob}(\mathscr{C})$, $\mathscr{C}^{op}(A, B) = \mathscr{C}(B, A)$,
- Composition is reversed: if $f : A \to B$ and $g : B \to C$ in $\mathscr{C}$, then

$$f^{op} \circ g^{op} = (g \circ f)^{op}.$$

Definition 3.1.4. Let $g_1, g_2 : X \to A$ (resp. $h_1, h_2 : B \to Y$). An arrow $f : A \to B$ in $\mathscr{C}$ is a monomorphism (resp. epimorphism) if:

$$f \circ g_1 = f \circ g_2 \implies g_1 = g_2 \quad (\text{resp. } h_1 \circ f = h_2 \circ f \implies h_1 = h_2)$$

Note 15. Monomorphisims generalize the notion of injectivity, while epimorphisms are the categorical generalization of surjectivity.

3.1.0.1 Functors

Definition 3.1.5 (Functor)**.** Let $\mathscr{C}$ and $\mathscr{D}$ be categories. A *functor*

$$F : \mathscr{C} \to \mathscr{D}$$

consists of

1. an assignment of an object $F(X) \in \mathrm{Ob}(\mathscr{D})$ to every object $X \in \mathrm{Ob}(\mathscr{C})$,
2. an assignment of a morphism $F(f) : F(X) \to F(Y)$ in $\mathscr{D}$ to every morphism $f : X \to Y$ in $\mathscr{C}$,

such that the following hold:

$$\begin{aligned} F(\mathrm{id}_X) &= \mathrm{id}_{F(X)} && \text{for all } X \in \mathrm{Ob}(\mathscr{C}), \\ F(g \circ f) &= F(g) \circ F(f) && \text{for all } f : X \to Y,\ g : Y \to Z \text{ in } \mathscr{C}. \end{aligned}$$

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